Releasing the gatekeeper from duty: the role of social network in victim crime reporting

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ARTICLE HISTORY
Compiled June 8, 2026

ABSTRACT

Reporting crime victimization to the police is usually viewed from rational choice and ecological perspectives. This paper makes case for reframing the problem in terms of help-seeking and social network dynamics. I test if activation of a victim's social network after victimization is positively associated with the probability that the police will be notified. In order to do this I build a model that include the variable of informing friends or family about an incident alongside predictors of reporting found important in different strains of the literature. I do separate estimations of the model on data concerning several types of victimization, both violent and property, including cybercrime. I find that discussing the matter with another person makes reporting much more likely in all cases except for face-to-face fraud, although in case of cybercrime the evidence is tentative.

KEYWORDS
victimization; reporting crime; social support; social networks; RCVS

Introduction

Suppose a rock smashes your window — wrapped around it is a note saying: 'You are the gatekeeper of criminal justice system now (Gottfredson & Gottfredson, 1987)'. That must be confusing. To make sense of what just happened and to figure out a course of action you may want to relate the experience to someone. In the end of this conversation you may choose to mobilize the law by notifying the police (D. J. Black, 1973) or to follow the code of the street (Anderson, 1999) and personally confront the frustrated editor that, you suspect, could not tolerate another opening "gatekeeper" citation in a paper on reporting behavior.

I assume that, since any victimization is known to be unexpected and cause stress and confusion (Janoff-Bulman, 1986), we should expect that a victim of a real crime would also turn to others in order 'to reduce their uncertainty and be reassured' (Ruback et al., 1984). I aim to make case for reframing reporting as a social process

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rather than an individual decision. In order to do that I show that, other things being equal, in certain types of crime victimization seeking help in others is the most important predictor of notifying the police about an incident. While often overlooked, the importance of social network in victim crime reporting is not unrecognized, as I will show in the next section. However, historically most of the work on the subject was focused on sexualized assault (SA) and intimate partner violence (IPV) (Allen, 2007; Baert et al., 2024; Patterson & Campbell, 2010; Paul et al., 2014), evidence for other types of crime remaining scarce (Bergemann, 2024; Xie & Baumer, 2019) or, as is the case with cybercrime, non-existent, to the best of my knowledge. This is the gap that I address in this paper.

My perspective on the matter is formed primarily by two theoretical developments. The first is Greenberg and Ruback's model of post-victimization decision making (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Ruback et al., 1984) which emphasizes psychological aspects of post-victimization situation and the role of others in a person's responding to it. Their model recognizes the factor of stress and posits a different calculus behind decision making, one that minimizes stress rather than maximizes profit. From this perspective, calling the police may be one way to reduce stress — at the same time, depending on the character of an incident, reporting may be viewed as a source of additional stress to be avoided. Importantly, in this model a decision is rarely made alone, and the more stressed — the more susceptible to influence a victim is. This is where the problem becomes sociological, and this is where the second inspiration for my work comes in. It is Pescosolido's social organization strategy framework that 'shifts the focus from individual "choice" to socially constructed patterns of decisions' (Pescosolido, 1992). Her famous call to move beyond rational choice thinking did not suggest to abandon it all together, as it is obvious that at some point an individual does weigh some costs and benefits, — rather it stated that a proper sociological subject of study would be the interactive nature of help-seeking, not individual decisions. These two frameworks look readily compatible to me. The first provides a micro-level explanation of the need to seek help, formal and informal. The second suggests that if we want to understand help-seeking (and make help more available) we should concentrate on how people navigate the social space, what paths do they take and if these paths differ for different demographics.

Both of these frameworks, despite being mentioned in the literature, remain at the margins of research on reporting. As Knoth and Ruback, 2019 put it, 'studies that assess differences between individuals who report to the police, seek alternative help, or do nothing (e.g., Kaukinen, 2002) often fail to recognize that individuals who do end up calling the police are likely to first seek advice from a third party'. I suspect that the main reason for that is the lack of relevant data, as crime victimization surveys historically concentrated on incident characteristics and victims' demographics. I use a fairly novel source of data — the Russian Crime Victimization Survey (RCVS) (Kuchakov, Serebrennikov, Bobrikov, Knorre, & Skougarevskiy, 2026), a regular and nationally representative monitoring that targets Russian citizens of 18 years and older. The RCVS has the advantage of recording if a victim told their friends or family about the incident.

To test whether advice from another person, or, more strictly, activation of a victim's social network, is positively associated with the probability that the police will be notified, I attempt to build an integrative model in the spirit of Xie and Baumer, 2019, accounting for variables associated with the established views on crime reporting – specifically, those emphasizing demographics differences, rational choice, relational distance between victim and offender, and victim's attitudes towards criminal justice.

Since post-victimization behavior is known to vary with crime type (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Janoff-Bulman, 1986), I estimate six separate models on different subsets of data: theft, fraud, cybercrime, assaults; all property crime, and all violent crime. I find that the fact of sharing the experience with a confidant is a strong predictor of notifying the police about victimization, both for violent and property crimes (with the notable exception of face-to-face fraud).

As a second step, I show that taking or not taking a path which goes through informing friends or family is not random. Variables associated with demographics and informal control stand out in this analysis. Males are much less willing to discuss property victimization with others, but having a partner balances this out. Higher household income is associated with higher chances of sharing a theft or cybercrime victimization, but decreases chances of revealing a fraud victimization. Small town or village setting halves the odds of informing others about violent victimization, chances are particularly small if the victim is acquainted with the offender.

Traditional views on reporting problematised

How has it been possible for such a seemingly obvious factor as seeking help in friends and family to remain at the margins of reporting literature? I speculate that it is largely explained by a feedback loop between theory and data.

Metaphors are the stuff of science (Kuhn et al., 1979) – and in quantitative research on victim crime reporting there are, arguably, two main metaphors that has been shaping it so far. The first, of course, depicts victim as an entrepreneur making a business decision, i.e. engaged in rational cost-benefit calculus. Enjoying a status close to common sense, this image has guided most of the work in the field so far – and found consistent empirical support, too. Time and again the gravity of a crime proved to be the most important predictor of reporting (Baumer, 2002; Dzmitryieva & Titaev, 2025; Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Goudriaan et al., 2004; Laub, 1981; Schneider et al., 1975; Skogan, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010) and backed the veracity of rational choice model. The appeal of rational choice perspective is clear (Bruch & Feinberg, 2017): it 'provides a theory of action that can anchor empirical research in meaningful descriptions of individuals' behavior'. Also, once adopted, this perspective allows to conveniently draw conclusions from data using regression methods straightforwardly implemented in statistical software packages.

The second is the metaphor of ecology, generally understood as layering of contexts that condition the decision making process. This understanding also seems to have a commonsensical quality to it[1]. However, for a long time assumptions of ecological effects, such as that of neighborhood disadvantage and local attitudes towards police, has seen little empirical testing (Baumer, 2002; Goudriaan et al., 2006). When Goudriaan et al., 2004 challenged the by then established domination of cost-benefit perspective, they argued that as a result of it 'we know a great deal about how characteristics of crimes, victims, and the relationship between victims and offenders are related to reporting, but relatively little about contextual effects at the meso- or macrolevel.'

A brief sketch of the ecological model that Goudriaan et al., 2004 arrived at may be instructive: it is well explicated in their paper and provides an insight into a certain manner of thinking about reporting. The suggested framework has two dimen-

[1]Which curiously manifests in how Laub, 1981, who must be one of the earliest adopters of the model in the field, uses the metaphor of ecology without referring to Bronfenbrenner, 1979 or introducing it in any other way.

sions. The first axis represents nested levels of factors affecting a victim's decision process. Micro-level comprises immediate characteristics of the incident: amount of harm suffered, weapon use, availability of a witness, feeling of shame, etc. Meso-level is characteristics of a neighborhood or community where the incident took place: social disorganization, local attitudes towards the police, etc. Finally, on macro-level one is influenced by state or nation-wide features such as a country's criminal code. Thus, on all levels social context is geographically defined – with a notable exception of a victim's social network 'that people bring to any location'. The second axis results from distinguishing between two driving forces behind decision making – rational cost-benefit calculus and normative response. These operate within 'ecological entities' of micro-, meso- and macro-levels.

The entrepreneur and ecology metaphors are perfectly complimentary. One can layer as much social context over an individual as one sees fit without modifying the cost-benefit core of the individual's agency. This mode of thinking was famously challenged by Pescosolido, 1992: writing about research on how people seek medical help she pointed that 'by bringing in the social merely as an overlay to individual mental events, we abandon sociological notions of the pivotal process of interaction as the mechanism through which social phenomena, including but not limited to decision making, occur'. The similarity between problems of seeking medical help and reporting victimization is obvious: essentially both are problems of seeking help (Xie & Baumer, 2019). One particular common feature of illness and criminal victimization is that both frequently emerge as a shock not only to an individual but to a broader network (Friedman, 1982; Ruback et al., 1984). If the shock is spread over the network it triggers what is essentially a collective response: the victim receives emotional and practical support (or, sadly, further trauma (Davis & Brickman, 1996)), other parties become involved into decision making process, and sometimes even act on behalf of the victim. It follows that this response must differ from the one a victim is capable of on their own — which is calling to focus on the interaction that follows a crime incident.

But in practice such shift of focus happens to be precluded with data limitations. Goudriaan et al., 2004 were keen to point out that the focus on crime seriousness had resulted in emphasis on attributes of crime in victimization surveys which in turn led to obscuring of crime's context in discussion of the decision to report. To this I would like to add that the social nature of reporting has remained a blind spot in the surveys most widely used in the literature (Xie & Baumer, 2019). In NCVS, a question about informing some party other than police first appeared only in the latest update (Bureau of Justice Statistics, 2022), after 50 years of research. In CSEW it is reserved for 10-15 year-olds only. ICVS never featured such a question. Here we are reminded that metaphors are not mere devices for understanding phenomena or conveying such understanding to other people — they shape the instruments and data we use to arrive at the understanding in the first place (Feyerabend, 1975). It is characteristic that those researchers who investigated social influence on reporting mostly had to rely on qualitative material (Brooks-Hay, 2020; Campbell et al., 2015; Dworkin & Allen, 2018) or gather their own data (Baert et al., 2024; Greenberg & Beach, 2004; Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Mason & Benson, 1996).

Focusing on social interaction after the crime

While acknowledging the influence others may exert on a victim's decision to call the police, ecological model does not fully recognize the interactive nature of this social

act. Yet, indications of such a nature were there right from the start. Two massive studies of police response time (Spelman & Brown, 1985; Van Kirk, 1978) found that most of the time dialing the police was delayed by people talking to others, either witnesses or advisors, in order to gather information, make sense of the situation or cope with stress. This, as well as contemporary advances in psychology of trauma (Bard & Sangrey, 1980; Figley, 1985; Kunreuther et al., 1978; Perloff, 1983; Wortman & Dunkel-Schetter, 1979), led Ruback et al., 1984 to suggest a new framework of victim decision making grounded in social psychology and fully developed in their *After the Crime* (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992). At first glance, their model was not unlike the "naming-claiming-blaming" model of disputes emergence (Felstiner et al., 1981). It decomposed the process into three stages, too: a) labeling event as a crime, b) determining its seriousness, 3) deciding what to do. Moreover, both models accounted for social influence. The main difference between the two was that, despite nodding to social psychology, the first was ecological in spirit, while the second focused on psychological mechanisms at work.

At the center of Greenberg and Ruback's framework is, once again, an individual, but one that is fundamentally stressed, confused, their assumptions about the world challenged or shattered (Janoff-Bulman, 1986). The metaphor of doing business does not seem to be accurate anymore — more appropriate would be something like coping with a natural disaster. Rather than seeking to maximize their net profit, in this perspective a victim acts to amend the distress. The incentive for reporting, wrote Greenberg and Ruback, 1992, 'varies as a joint function of victims' level of distress and the belief that notification will ameliorate the distress'. They emphasized the part that 'counselors' play in helping with stress and modifying victim's beliefs on each of the three stages of decision process, more so given that a victim may be in a state of ambiguity or shock which makes them uncertain of what to do and susceptible to influence. Such influence can take form of cuing the victim to particular options and scripts not yet considered, providing information, channeling certain norms, offering emotional and practical support. Findings from a series of field-laboratory experiments, interview studies and archive researches described in Greenberg and Ruback, 1992 tended to support the model. Most victims (70–82% depending on crime type) were likely to talk with someone before turning to the police, and most of those (58–92%) followed the advice received from others. However, both experiments, clever as they were, and studies of archives of police and crisis centers had limited generalizability.

Since than, more quantitative evidence of importance of social support for reporting has been gathered. Greenberg and Beach, 2004 employed data from a survey of property crime victims to evaluate three frameworks of reporting: cost-benefit calculus, affective action, and social influence, – and demonstrated that the latter was the best predictor of the three. Mason and Benson, 1996 applied social influence model to reporting of white collar crime and found that encouragement to report increased the probability of notifying the police from 28% to 41%. In a study of reporting violent victimization among young people Zaykowski, 2015 found that parental knowledge about an incident was a key factor influencing police awareness. Kaukinen, 2004 argued that reporting to the police should be viewed as one possible strategy of help-seeking in dealing with violence, and that it overlaps with other strategies, turning to friends and family among them. The WHO multi-country survey on domestic violence against women (Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005) showed that, although victims rarely seek help from agencies, friends and family can serve as a stepping stone to them. Studies by Paul et al., 2014 and Baert et al., 2024 both concluded that social support increased the likelihood of informing the police about sexualized assault.

To sum up, the evidence for importance of social network dynamics in post-victimization help-seeking is present, but the body of work remains small, fragmented by types of victimization and victim demographics, and constrained mainly to North American and the UK jurisdictions. In this study I aim to explicitly reframe the problem in the spirit of Pescosolido, 1992 while encompassing both violent and property crime, the newly emerged cybercrime included, against general population.

Data

For this analysis, I use pooled data from three waves of the Russian Crime Victimization Survey (RCVS) (Kuchakov, Serebrennikov, Bobrikov, Knorre, & Skougarevskiy, 2026)[2]. It is a nationally representative survey conducted every three years, targeting the entire adult (18+) population of Russia. The survey waves were carried out in 2018, 2021, and 2024 in the Russian language. All three survey waves employed a Random Digit Dialing (RDD) methodology — a probability sampling technique in which telephone numbers are generated at random. Data collection was conducted using the Computer-Assisted Telephone Interviewing (CATI) method. Raking algorithm was used to obtain weights for correction of sample imbalances.

Each wave employs a screening design: a person is asked if they were subject to some kind of offense in last 5 years[3] — if yes, the person completes the full questionnaire, if no, a shortened version comprised only of questions about their sociodemographics and subjective characteristics. The process continues until a threshold of about 3,000 individuals reporting a victimization experience is reached. Across all waves, the total sample includes 42,572 respondents, 8,688 of whom responded positively to the screening question.

All respondents are asked only about their most recent incident occurring within the five years (and 12 months prior to the interview). The type of an incident is derived from responses to a number of dichotomous questions presented in everyday language (see Table A in Appendices for explication of crime type construction logic). After removing non-victims, victims of attempted cybercrime, and of offenses classified as 'other', my sample consists of 5,697 observations — these are people who report being victimized within five years before their interview.

The questionnaires employed across the three waves are nearly identical. An exception important for this study is the question about emotional impact of victimization — it was introduced only in the 2024 wave. This is why I use the corresponding variable only for robustness check on the subset of data coming from this latest wave of survey.

Table 1 describes the data I use (the questions behind the variables are listed in Table B of Appendices). It is evident that most people do inform someone close about victimization incident and that doing so is positively correlated with reporting to the police. However, as I show in the next section, at this point we should rather attribute this to multiple confounders of the two variables.

[2]Available from Harvard Dataverse (Kuchakov, Serebrennikov, Bobrikov, Knorre, Skougarevskiy, & Titaev, 2026) and GitHub (https://github.com/irlcode/RCVS).

[3]The precise wording is 'Please recall whether you were robbed, assaulted, threatened, or were a victim of violence, fraud, or other crimes in Russia during the last 5 years?'

Table 1. Numbers of victimized and reported incidents shares tabulated by variables used in this study

		Cybercrime		Fraud		Theft		Assault		Robbery	
		N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)
Panel A. Totals											
Survey wave	2018	442	0.43 (0.04)	328	0.38 (0.04)	841	0.62 (0.03)	211	0.53 (0.05)	141	0.73 (0.06)
	2021	837	0.44 (0.02)	208	0.53 (0.05)	545	0.62 (0.03)	266	0.59 (0.04)	100	0.68 (0.06)
	2024	695	0.52 (0.02)	34	0.73 (0.11)	394	0.56 (0.03)	254	0.56 (0.04)	78	0.62 (0.07)
	Pooled	1974	0.47 (0.02)	570	0.45 (0.03)	1780	0.61 (0.02)	731	0.56 (0.02)	319	0.69 (0.04)
Panel B. Post-victimization behavior											
Victim informed	No	305	0.36 (0.04)	58	0.31 (0.09)	118	0.42 (0.06)	129	0.2 (0.05)	42	0.46 (0.13)
friends or relatives	Yes	1669	0.49 (0.02)	512	0.47 (0.03)	1662	0.62 (0.02)	602	0.65 (0.03)	277	0.71 (0.04)
Victim went	No	1974	0.47 (0.02)	570	0.45 (0.03)	1780	0.61 (0.02)	385	0.41 (0.03)	187	0.64 (0.05)
to hospital	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	346	0.74 (0.03)	132	0.77 (0.05)
Panel C. Socioeconomic status											
Gender	Female	1080	0.47 (0.02)	282	0.48 (0.04)	882	0.62 (0.02)	277	0.63 (0.04)	121	0.77 (0.05)
	Male	894	0.46 (0.02)	288	0.43 (0.04)	898	0.59 (0.02)	454	0.51 (0.03)	198	0.62 (0.05)
Age	18–24	185	0.34 (0.05)	39	0.49 (0.13)	160	0.36 (0.06)	125	0.34 (0.05)	50	0.39 (0.1)
	25–34	488	0.44 (0.03)	136	0.31 (0.07)	427	0.61 (0.03)	207	0.49 (0.05)	82	0.6 (0.08)
	35–49	719	0.48 (0.02)	181	0.5 (0.05)	624	0.68 (0.03)	257	0.65 (0.04)	112	0.67 (0.06)
	50–64	397	0.47 (0.03)	128	0.57 (0.06)	383	0.56 (0.03)	111	0.71 (0.06)	54	0.86 (0.06)
	65+	185	0.58 (0.05)	86	0.39 (0.07)	184	0.69 (0.04)	31	0.82 (0.09)	20	0.95 (0.07)
Has partner	No	752	0.47 (0.02)	236	0.45 (0.05)	653	0.57 (0.03)	349	0.51 (0.03)	134	0.67 (0.06)
	Yes	1222	0.46 (0.02)	334	0.46 (0.04)	1127	0.64 (0.02)	382	0.61 (0.03)	185	0.7 (0.05)
Household income	Lower	1389	0.47 (0.02)	421	0.43 (0.04)	1215	0.6 (0.02)	489	0.57 (0.03)	215	0.71 (0.05)
	Higher	585	0.46 (0.03)	149	0.51 (0.06)	565	0.63 (0.03)	242	0.54 (0.04)	104	0.6 (0.06)
Settlement type	City	1378	0.47 (0.02)	430	0.46 (0.04)	1257	0.61 (0.02)	517	0.52 (0.03)	224	0.64 (0.05)
	Small town or village	596	0.45 (0.03)	140	0.45 (0.06)	523	0.6 (0.03)	214	0.66 (0.04)	95	0.79 (0.06)
Higher education	No	863	0.47 (0.02)	295	0.43 (0.04)	849	0.59 (0.02)	439	0.54 (0.03)	160	0.67 (0.05)
	Yes	1109	0.47 (0.02)	275	0.49 (0.05)	931	0.63 (0.02)	290	0.62 (0.04)	159	0.71 (0.06)
Employment	Non-employed or pensioner	617	0.52 (0.03)	221	0.5 (0.05)	581	0.62 (0.03)	203	0.7 (0.04)	91	0.79 (0.06)
	Employed or student	1357	0.43 (0.02)	349	0.42 (0.04)	1199	0.6 (0.02)	528	0.49 (0.03)	228	0.63 (0.04)
Panel D. Incident characteristics											
Damage: money,	0 to 1	185	0.22 (0.04)	48	0.24 (0.09)	191	0.49 (0.05)	555	0.52 (0.03)	39	0.61 (0.11)
thnd rub.	1 to 10	702	0.31 (0.02)	118	0.26 (0.06)	423	0.45 (0.03)	67	0.59 (0.07)	62	0.61 (0.09)
	10 to 50	561	0.5 (0.03)	137	0.39 (0.06)	636	0.61 (0.03)	46	0.7 (0.09)	116	0.66 (0.06)
	50+	526	0.7 (0.03)	267	0.65 (0.04)	530	0.76 (0.03)	63	0.85 (0.06)	102	0.78 (0.06)
Damage: physical	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	175	0.44 (0.05)	53	0.6 (0.09)
	Light	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	246	0.5 (0.04)	83	0.69 (0.08)
	Heavy	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	134	0.74 (0.05)	58	0.67 (0.08)
Damage: emotional	Light	129	0.33 (0.05)	4	0.75 (0.34)	75	0.47 (0.07)	56	0.37 (0.08)	4	0.75 (0.39)
(wave 2024 only)	Medium	167	0.48 (0.05)	6	0.05 (0.17)	109	0.61 (0.06)	55	0.46 (0.08)	22	0.44 (0.12)
	Heavy	393	0.58 (0.03)	24	0.96 (0.05)	206	0.56 (0.04)	143	0.67 (0.05)	52	0.67 (0.08)
There was a witness	No	1120	0.45 (0.02)	204	0.42 (0.05)	987	0.66 (0.02)	276	0.53 (0.04)	148	0.67 (0.06)
	Yes	854	0.49 (0.02)	366	0.48 (0.04)	793	0.55 (0.02)	455	0.58 (0.03)	171	0.7 (0.05)
Offender had	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	503	0.53 (0.03)	162	0.67 (0.05)
a weapon	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	228	0.64 (0.04)	87	0.69 (0.07)
Victim resisted	No/Doubt	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	199	0.69 (0.04)	96	0.72 (0.07)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	532	0.52 (0.03)	153	0.64 (0.05)
Victim-offender	Stranger	1047	0.5 (0.02)	409	0.43 (0.04)	56	0.5 (0.08)	450	0.51 (0.03)	189	0.62 (0.05)
relationship	Acquaintance	38	0.68 (0.1)	75	0.51 (0.09)	12	0.64 (0.17)	84	0.53 (0.07)	32	0.65 (0.14)
	Friend or rel.	13	0.62 (0.19)	35	0.67 (0.12)	3	0.51 (0.41)	59	0.57 (0.09)	16	0.93 (0.1)
	Coll. or neighbor	16	0.82 (0.14)	72	0.41 (0.09)	7	0.64 (0.21)	79	0.9 (0.04)	24	0.87 (0.08)
	Sp. or partner	5	0.55 (0.33)	2	0.71 (0.54)	2	0 (0)	50	0.57 (0.08)	20	0.83 (0.1)
Self-blame	No	609	0.55 (0.03)	216	0.45 (0.05)	1096	0.69 (0.02)	628	0.57 (0.03)	242	0.7 (0.04)
	Yes	1465	0.44 (0.02)	384	0.45 (0.04)	797	0.52 (0.03)	162	0.55 (0.05)	98	0.6 (0.07)
Panel E. Victim's attitude towards the police											
Has crime record	No	1825	0.47 (0.02)	526	0.46 (0.03)	1645	0.6 (0.02)	597	0.58 (0.03)	252	0.68 (0.04)
	Yes	148	0.46 (0.05)	44	0.45 (0.11)	134	0.66 (0.05)	133	0.5 (0.05)	67	0.71 (0.08)
Knows an officer	No	995	0.49 (0.02)	291	0.46 (0.04)	868	0.61 (0.02)	315	0.57 (0.04)	159	0.69 (0.05)
	Yes	975	0.44 (0.02)	279	0.45 (0.05)	912	0.6 (0.02)	415	0.56 (0.03)	159	0.67 (0.05)
Trusts the police	No	347	0.52 (0.03)	23	0.9 (0.07)	219	0.55 (0.04)	155	0.61 (0.05)	45	0.64 (0.09)
(wave 2024 only)	Yes	348	0.52 (0.03)	11	0.54 (0.22)	175	0.58 (0.04)	99	0.49 (0.06)	33	0.6 (0.11)

Proportions of reported victimizations and standard errors were calculated using observations weights to correct for sample imbalances.

Method

Figure 1 provides a visual summary of the process I assume. I divide all observed variables into two groups. The first consists of all things *given*, namely a person's socioeconomic situation pre-victimization (I assume that in most cases it was not affected severely), characteristics of the incident, and macro context. The second group are *actions to take* post-victimization: these should not be reduced, as is often the case, to reporting or non-reporting — at the very least they should include informing one's intimate circle and, in case of violent crime, seeking medical help. The latter is especially important for identification of 'counsellors' effect: going to hospital suggests serious harm which is hard to conceal from friends and family, at the same time medical personnel are required to inform the police about patients 'with injuries for which there are reasonable grounds to believe that they were sustained as a result of unlawful actions'[4]. Moreover, medical staff can give informal advice to report victimization[5]. Modeling-wise, (the usual) omission of this variable would mean a potential confounding problem.

It stands out in the scheme that both the outcome and focus variables are supposedly influenced by the same set of factors. It should come as no surprise considering that both represent decisions to make in certain circumstances. Fortunately, the data allow to control for these multiple confounders. A possible endogeneity problem (red arrow in Figure 1) is discussed below.

Outcome and focus variables

My outcome variable is a respondent's answer to the question 'Did the law enforcement find out about the crime?'[6] The variable of interest is the answer to the question 'Did you tell someone close about the crime?'. Both are yes or no questions. Importantly, the data do not tell us anything about the order of events. Therefore, I must explicate an assumption I make: if a victim notifies both their intimate circle and the police, then they first turn to family and friends, then to the law enforcement. Theoretically, it is not always the case, which means that I might have an endogeneity problem. I reassure myself in two ways. First, what we know about post-victimization behavior suggests that if someone is notified at all then friends or family come before the police (Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Ruback & Thompson, 2001). Second, consider the situation from econometric perspective: after controlling for incident characteristics and other predictors common to both variables, there is no variation left in reporting variable that could explain variation in focus variable except for that which comes from the very act of communication with the police. In other words, the suspected endogeneity is possible only if we think that it is something in the experience with the

[4]It is required by the order of the Ministry of Health which sets 'the procedure for informing medical organizations of internal affairs agencies in cases established by paragraph 5 of part 4 of article 13 of the Federal Law "On the Fundamentals of Protecting the Health of Citizens in the Russian Federation"'. Whether medical personnel complies with this requirement is another question: as shown in Table 1, the police were notified about 74% of assaults and 77% of robberies where victims went to hospital. It is clear that much is left for discretion of the medical personnel, who, not being trained to judge on causes of injuries, have to rely on a patient's word in many cases.

[5]Kamalov and Sergeeva, 2023 found that about 6% of IPV victims in Russia asked medical personnel for help. It is a considerable quantity, for comparison: only 15% of victims sought help in police. Also, in less sensitive cases of non-partner violence, informal consultations about reporting may be more frequent.

[6]A positive answer to this question may mean both reporting by the victim themselves or one of their confidants — in my framing this ambiguity is not important as I am interested in network response as opposed to solo response.

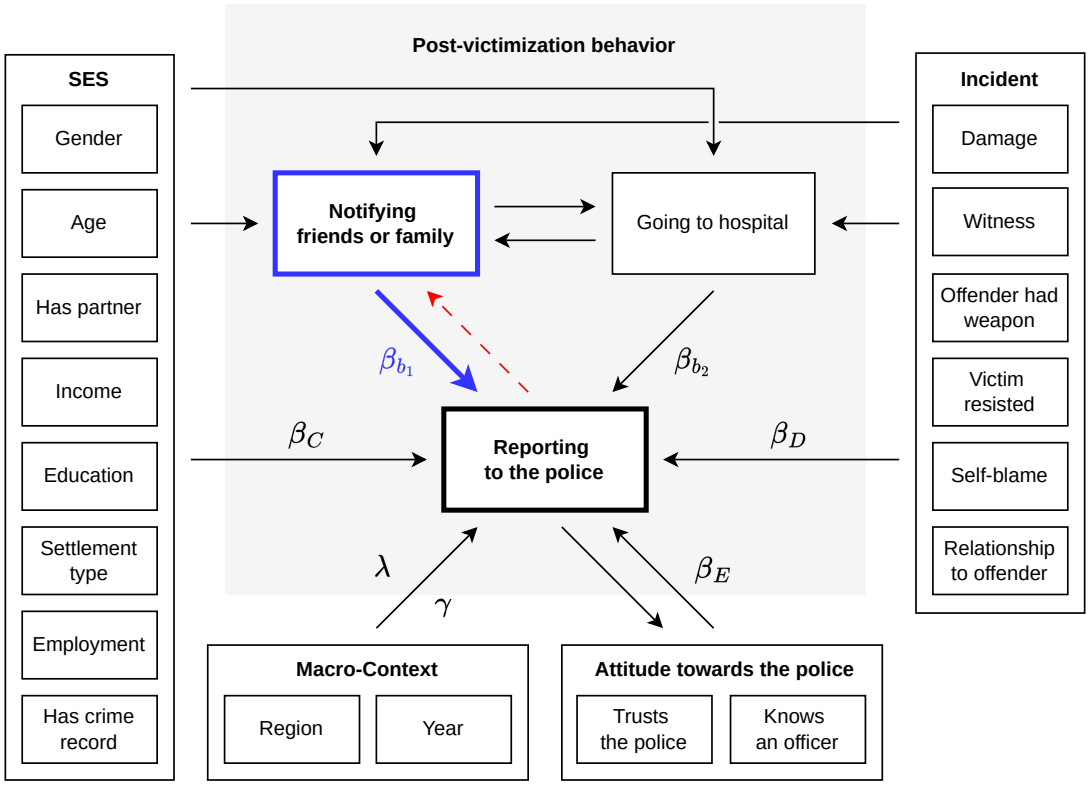


Figure 1. Causal diagram of decision making model

law enforcement that prompts relation of the whole story to a friend or family. While not incomprehensible, this path seems less likely than the one in the opposite direction. Still, to reduce such possibility I estimate an additional model on a subset of data in which I remove observations where the police was notified but no case was initiated. The rationale: I assume that a popular scenario for *incident—police—friends/family* path must be seeking help in police but being rejected and turning to intimate circle out of resentment for the perceived injustice.

Control variables

Other variables, apart from going to hospital, that I use for control are those listed in panels C, D, E of Table 1. They describe a victim in dimensions that were found relevant in the strains of research that emphasize demographics (Baumer & Lauritsen, 2010; D. J. Black, 1973; Hart & Rennison, 2003; Zaykowski et al., 2019), gravity of an incident (Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Skogan, 1976, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010), post-victimization self-blame (Felson et al., 1999; Kaukinen, 2002; Knoth & Ruback, 2019), relational distance between victim and offender (Brennan, 2016; Felson & Lantz, 2016; Gartner & Macmillan, 1995; Kaukinen, 2004; Ruback, 1993), role of witnesses (Felson et al., 1999), urban vs rural context (D. Black, 1976; Laub, 1981; Rennison et al., 2013), and a victim's personal attitudes towards the police (Boateng, 2018; Goudriaan et al., 2004; Slocum et al., 2010; Warner, 2007). Admittedly, I have only rather specific proxies for a person's trust in the police: having a (self-reported) experience of criminal prosecution, and being personally acquainted with someone in

law enforcement[7]. On the other hand, these may be more telling than a reported degree of trust in the police, as some scholarship finds that it is direct experience with the law enforcement, and not declared perceptions of it, that affects reporting behavior (Davis & Henderson, 2003).

Apart from that I use two variables to control for macro-context. A victim's region is meant to capture local informal norms that may inform the default behavior of both victims and their 'counselors' (Goudriaan et al., 2004). This is a rather crude proxy since context may vary greatly across a city, not to mention a region (Baumer, 2002; Goudriaan et al., 2006), but the best that my data allow: names of towns and villages are removed from the dataset to ensure respondents' anonymity. To account for possible changes in society-level attitudes towards certain crimes and cooperation with police (Tarling & Morris, 2010) I use survey wave fixed effect.

Model

My base model has the following linear form:

$$Reported_i = \beta_{b_1} ToldSomeone_i + \beta_{b_2} WentHospital_i + \sum \beta_C SES_i + \sum \beta_D Incident_i + \sum \beta_E Attitude_i + \lambda + \gamma + \epsilon_i \quad (1)$$

where *Reported* is a binary indicator of informing the police, $ToldSomeone$ is my focus variable that indicates if a victim talked with friends or family about the incident, and $WentHospital$ is indication of seeking medical help (used only in models of reporting violent crime). For conciseness, I do not list all the individual control variables here and refer you to Table 1: the groups in the equation correspond to the panels in the table, e.g. SES comprises variables related to socioeconomic status listed in panel C; *Incident* stands for incident characteristics (panel D); *Attitude* is a vector of variables that capture a victim's attitude towards the police (panel E). Finally, λ and γ are region and survey year fixed effects.

I estimate this model using logistic regression on six subsets of victim only data split by crime type: theft, face-to-face fraud, cybercrime, assault; all property crime, all violent crime. Property crime comprises theft, fraud, and cybercrime; violent crime includes assault and robbery (the latter being too rare to estimate a separate model). Modeling is done in R using fixest package (Bergé et al., 2026), the code for replication of my results is available at a GitHub repository[8].

Results

Notifying the police

Regression results in Table 2 suggest that a positive 'counselors' effect on reporting is present both in cases of property crimes and violent victimization — with a notable

[7] In wave 2024 of the RCVS a question about trust in the police was added to the questionnaire, but for my purposes it is useless since the level of trust reported post-victimization can be informed by the very fact of reporting the crime to the police.

[8] TBA

exception of face-to-face fraud [9]. It is almost as universal as the effect of large monetary loss (more than 50,000 rubles, or approximately 700 US dollars), and is especially pronounced in cases of violent crime: victims of assault and robbery who informed friends or family are 8-10 times more likely to notify the police. The effect is comparable with that of going to hospital as an aftermath of the incident.

However, a theoretically important variable is omitted in this analysis — the level of emotional damage which can be driving both informal (friends and family) and formal (the police) help-seeking. It may well be that it is not simply a function of the amount of monetary loss, physical damage, and other observed characteristics of an incident — if so, there is a potential confounder in my modeling. To control for that, I use data from the 2024 survey wave which featured an explicit question about emotional damage. For each crime type[10], I first estimate a model of the same specification as was used on the full sample (panel B in Table 3), then a model with emotional damage added (panel C). The first thing to notice is that after constraining analysis to 2024 data (panel B) the coefficient at my focus variable ceases to be statistically significant in models of reporting theft and cybercrime, in model for property crimes in general it retains significance at $\alpha = 0.1$. In models of reporting violent crimes, the coefficient retains significance at $\alpha = 0.05$ and lower. Adding emotional damage (panel C) to models does not change this, and coefficients at damage levels are mostly insignificant. Rather than omission of an important variable, these results suggest lack of statistical power due to shrinking of data: there are five times less observations for theft and three times — for cybercrime (that in violent crime models the effect survives switching to less observations points to differences in the aftermath of violent and property victimizations).

Next, as discussed in Method section, I have to address a possible endogeneity problem due to unknown order of informing the intimate circle and notifying the police. To ensure the *incident—friends/family—police* path I remove from analysis the observations in which a report did not result in a police case. The effect stands for violent crimes, and theft, but not for other property crimes (panel D in Table 3). However, this robustness check must be throwing at least part of champagne with the cork. Initiation or non-initiation of a case is not random: the police aims to filter out hard to investigate cases and those with a potential for retraction, because solved cases share is the key indicator by which their performance is judged (Paneyakh, 2014). It is safe to assume that in many of such cases a victim is also doubtful of filing a report or even labeling the incident a police matter. And, according to Greenberg and Ruback, 1992, these are precisely the cases in which 'counselors' effect must be the most pronounced. This means my estimates must be biased towards zero.

Bearing this in mind (and also that most people do turn to their intimate circle before the police (Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005; Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Ruback & Thompson, 2001)), I am not too discouraged by the robustness check results. They

[9]This is not the only regard in which fraud stands out. While in other crime types younger victims (18–24) are less likely to report than the middle aged (35–49), in case of fraud it is the other way round: young victims are the most likely reporters — with the elders (65+) being the least likely to notify the police. The latter, by itself, should not come as a surprise: it is known that the elderly may be unwilling to report fraud (Parti & Tahir, 2023). However, one of the expected reasons to conceal fraud victimization is feeling of guilt, and fear to compromise one's autonomy in the eyes of others – but in my modeling there is no statistically significant association of self-blame with reporting, and neither with informing friends or family (Table 4) – which again singles fraud out among other crime types. I am inclined to believe that these discrepancies may be due to varying nature of fraud in different age groups, but this issue requires further investigation.

[10]Except for fraud: there were only 32 such cases in wave 2024 (fraudsters seem to be switching to online schemes). I do not drop these cases completely, they are included in model for reporting property crime in general.

Table 2. Odds ratios of reporting victimization to the police (logistic regression)

	Theft	Fraud	Cybercrime	Assault	All prop.	All viol.
Post-victimization behavior						
Victim informed friends or family	2.407**	1.769	1.898*	8.203***	2.121**	10.335***
Victim went to hospital				12.422***		10.743***
Socioeconomic status						
Male	0.730	0.834	0.871	0.593	0.851***	0.580
Age (*ref. level*: 35–49):						
18–24	0.242***	4.000*	0.690+	0.202+	0.530***	0.280+
25–34	0.731	0.491+	0.832	0.398+	0.758*	0.598
50–64	0.560*	0.679	0.740	0.736	0.704***	1.289
65+	1.194	0.257+	1.052	4.446	0.961	2.946
Has a partner	1.211	0.647	1.012	1.104	0.984	1.157
Middle to upper household income	1.103	1.693	1.044	0.652	1.142	0.678
Small town or village	0.826	1.616	0.898	3.702*	0.907	2.784
Higher education	1.139	1.383	0.970	1.093	1.046	1.018
Employed or student	1.150	0.386	0.872	0.282***	0.895	0.437**
Incident characteristics						
Damage:						
Financial, thnd rub. (*ref. level*: 0 to 1):						
1 to 10	0.842	0.990	1.872+	2.086	1.189	1.835
10 to 50	1.929***	1.884	4.126**	3.107	2.561***	2.583**
50+	3.768***	7.830***	10.477***	4.241***	5.626***	2.954**
Physical (*ref. level*: No):						
Light				1.014		1.167
Heavy				1.453		0.897
There was a witness				1.749		1.196
Victim resisted				0.689		0.516
Offender had a weapon				2.024*		1.961
Self-blame	0.548***	0.822	0.511***	0.823	0.533***	0.565+
Victim-offender relationship (*ref. level*: Stranger):						
Acquaintance				1.186		0.914
Colleague or neighbor				6.790*		11.795+
Friend or relative				0.457		0.733
Spouse or partner				0.691		1.050
Victim's attitude towards the police						
Has crime record	1.844**	1.143	0.771	0.622	1.051	0.837
Knows an officer	0.897	1.036	0.829	0.736	0.884+	0.870
N	1752	518	1959	463	4308	628
McFaddens' R2	0.202	0.328	0.188	0.500	0.157	0.452
FE: Region	X	X	X	X	X	X
FE: Survey year	X	X	X	X	X	X

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$
Standard errors are clustered by region and survey year. Observations' weights are used to correct sample imbalances.

Table 3. Robustness tests: odds ratios of reporting victimization to the police, model estimations with varying model specifications and sample

	Theft	Fraud	Cybercrime	Assault	All prop.	All viol.
Panel A. Base model, pooled data of three survey waves						
Victim informed friends or family	2.407**	1.769	1.898*	8.203***	2.121**	10.335***
N	1752	518	1959	463	4308	628
McFaddens' R2	0.202	0.328	0.188	0.500	0.157	0.452
Panel B. Base model, wave 2024 only						
Victim informed friends or family	2.516		1.491	23.997**	1.598+	23.520*
N	328		665	186	1082	229
McFaddens' R2	0.266		0.199	0.623	0.171	0.613
Panel C. Base model augmented with emotional damage, wave 2024 only						
Victim informed friends or family	2.511		1.442	20.065*	1.552+	21.506*
Emotional damage (*ref. level*: Light):						
Medium	1.473		1.605	1.610	1.359	1.413
Heavy	1.515		1.811	0.745	1.735+	0.541
N	324		657	186	1072	229
McFaddens' R2	0.261		0.199	0.621	0.170	0.613
Panel D. Base model, pooled data, reported-but-no-case observations removed						
Victim informed friends or family	2.485**	1.289	1.304	16.080*	1.837	23.570**
N	1234	323	1478	281	3150	403
McFaddens' R2	0.254	0.419	0.251	0.625	0.206	0.556

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

All models include the same list of control variables as in Table 2. Fixed effects are region and year in panel A and D, region only in panels B and C. Standard errors are clustered by region and year in panels A and D, by region only in panels B and C. Observations' weights are used to correct sample imbalances.

warrant to conclude that activation of social network is positively associated with reporting violent victimization and, there are good reasons to believe, with reporting theft and cybercrime, too — although in the latter case prudence is recommended until we have data detailing the order of actions in the aftermath of victimization.

Informing friends or family

Turning now to predictors of social network activation, I find that the process is different from that of formal help seeking. Whereas in modeling of reporting a statistically significant association with *gender* was observed only for property crime in general, in seeking informal help being a male is a prominent negative predictor for each property crime type.Having a *partner* somewhat balances this out. *Age group*, which was universally important in the first exercise, makes a difference only for sharing information of violent crimes (younger victims are less willing to let anyone know) and fraud (but there is no clear pattern). The amount of *financial damage* is much less important for sharing with the intimate circle than for reporting to the police. The

influence of *informal control* is evident: odds of discussing violent victimization are halved if it happened in a small town or a village, if the victim is acquainted the offender chances of relating the story to friends or family are ten times lower than if it were stranger. Interestingly, personally *knowing a policeman* significantly raises chances of discussing fraud of cybercrime (with, I assume, the very policeman), but lowers chances of reporting property crime[11].

Discussion

Most of the literature on reporting victimization to the police has been searching for correlates of non-cooperation, this gave us knowledge on who are under-represented in the police data, what are the blind spots of law enforcement — basically, how strongly and in what manner the official picture is distorted. This line of inquiry is important, not least because it provided us with understanding of the connections between this distortion and vulnerabilities of certain social groups (Gartner & Macmillan, 1995; Orcutt & Faison, 1988; Warner, 2007). When backed with sufficient social mobilization this knowledge would help to change the *status quo* by establishing victims services (Maguire & Pointing, 1988), changing the law (Spohn & Horney, 1992), or introducing new practices into the police work to make help more available (Sukhtankar et al., 2022). At the same time, this research still leaves a lot to be learnt about *how* victims of crime seek help.

There are several paths one can take in seeking help after victimization, some of these lead to or pass through notifying the police (Akers & Kaukinen, 2009; Kaukinen, 2004). For example, a person can inform a friend who suggests to visit a crisis center where, among other things, the person is recommended to file a case against the offender (Baert et al., 2024). It is on these paths that decisions are made — one could go so far as to suggest that decisions *happen* in 'drifting' on the default currents (Bruch & Feinberg, 2017), and that the availability of certain paths that shapes the outcomes (Small & Sukhu, 2016). Anyway, it is clear then that it is these paths and the factors of taking them, that are under-studied and should be explored for new applicable insights. My aim in this study was to make case for this perspective by demonstrating how strongly path variables compete against victim's and incident's characteristics.

Admittedly, I chose the paths more traveled by — those that go through friends and family, ERs, and sometimes reach police stations. There are other waypoints worth mapping: courts, lawyers, crisis centers, criminal authorities, etc. If these are recorded we could reconceptualize the dependent variable as taking one of the paths as suggested by Pescosolido et al., 1998 — my study can be seen as approaching such framework but not quite getting there because of too narrow set of help-seeking options. The same paper by Pescosolido et al., 1998 points to another possible direction of research — *content* of this network: the values, norms, or defaults that it transmits. In this study I have to make a naive assumption that friends and family can only 'push' a victim towards the police while it is obviously more complicated than that. Pursuing these lines of inquiry requires updating our instruments. Where including a question about waypoints visited and their order seems to be trivial from the technical point of view, to record the content of one's social network is a more challenging problem — but, I believe, worth the effort.

[11] It is tempting to conclude that informally a policeman shares that there is not much that the law enforcement can do to help with fraud and cybercrime – but this subject requires a separate qualitative research.

Table 4. Odds ratios of informing friends or family about victimization (logistic regression)

	Theft	Fraud	Cybercrime	Assault	All prop.	All viol.
Post-victimization behavior						
Victim went to hospital				2.915*		2.325*
Socioeconomic status						
Male	0.448**	0.227+	0.401***	0.436	0.476***	0.450
Age (*ref. level*: 35–49):						
18–24	0.679	1.019	1.479	0.299*	0.995	0.403+
25–34	0.554	2.112*	1.319	0.173***	0.899	0.232**
50–64	1.031	1.474	1.209	1.546	0.974	2.124
65+	0.637	0.777	1.152	0.943	0.788	1.639
Has a partner	2.185*	1.869	1.668+	1.133	1.716*	1.360
Middle to upper household income	1.512*	0.307*	1.350+	0.844	1.075	0.905
Small town or village	1.026	0.344	0.974	0.528	0.914	0.455*
Higher education	1.483+	4.684	0.998	0.814	1.196	0.836
Employed or student	0.957	1.227	1.806*	1.803	1.299	1.920
Incident characteristics						
Damage:						
Financial, thnd rub. (*ref. level*: 0 to 1):						
1 to 10	1.930	0.724	0.995	0.681	1.145	1.648
10 to 50	2.320**	0.852	1.514	0.801	1.574*	1.292
50+	1.357	0.875	1.055	2.648	1.163	1.602
Physical (*ref. level*: No):						
Light				1.550		1.401
Heavy				1.499		1.243
There was a witness				1.431		1.109
Victim resisted				1.073		0.790
Offender had a weapon				1.044		1.213
Self-blame	0.623	0.910	0.667+	1.220	0.589**	1.311
Victim-offender relationship (*ref. level*: Stranger):						
Acquaintance				0.091***		0.075***
Colleague or neighbor				1.730		1.595
Friend or relative				0.533		0.517
Spouse or partner				1.117		0.626
Victim's attitude towards the police						
Has crime record	0.566	4.604	1.247	0.718	0.879	0.734
Knows an officer	1.067	5.667*	1.570*	0.501	1.415	0.755
N	1431	344	1895	416	4260	557
McFaddens' R2	0.218	0.363	0.129	0.361	0.133	0.379
FE: Region	X	X	X	X	X	X
FE: Survey year	X	X	X	X	X	X

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$
Standard errors are clustered by region and survey year. Observations' weights are used to correct sample imbalances.

Introducing my perspective on the matter I suggested replacing the entrepreneur metaphor with that of coping with an aftermath of a natural disaster (inspired, I guess, by Kunreuther et al., 1978) — it was only later that I realized how *ecological* it is[12]. Metaphors are funny things. Anyway, let me invoke it one more time. In a book on social epidemiology, Kawachi and Berkman, 2014 open up their chapter on social cohesion and health by describing a deadly earthquake that hit Kobe, Japan, in 1997. Some neighborhoods of the city sustained less damage and recovered faster — not because they were less struck, but because of the spontaneous collective response of local citizens: they formed bucket brigades to put out fires, assisted in rescue operations, guarded abandoned property, oversaw reconstruction, and established organizations that lobbied allocating resources to local businesses. I think the moral of this story translates well to crime victimization. Shifting focus from individuals and magnitude of incidents that strike them to how their social network respond to victimization may provide us with better understanding of how to reduce harm. Such shift would mean a departure from the original problem of reporting — but this transition from the interest of state to an individual's well-being seems only natural. A victim is not a 'gatekeeper' in the master's service, they are first and foremost a person who needs help.

Appendices

Appendix A. Construction of crime types

Crime type	Condition

Appendix B. Questions formulations and construction of variables

Question	Encoding	Variable

Appendix C. Wave 2024 tabulation

[12]Even later I came across the same analogy in a paper by Wright, 1977: writing about a victim's need for recognition of the injustice he likens it to expectation of 'a visit by a government minister to the disaster area', — another peculiar convergence.

Table C1. Numbers of victimized and reported incidents shares tabulated by variables used in this study, survey wave 2024 only

		Cybercrime		Fraud		Theft		Assault		Robbery	
		N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)
Panel A. Totals											
Survey wave	2024	695	0.52 (0.02)	34	0.73 (0.11)	394	0.56 (0.03)	254	0.56 (0.04)	78	0.62 (0.07)
Panel B. Post-victimization behavior											
Victim informed	No	124	0.47 (0.05)	9	0.48 (0.24)	34	0.48 (0.1)	43	0.24 (0.08)	11	0.21 (0.18)
friends or relatives	Yes	571	0.53 (0.03)	25	0.85 (0.1)	360	0.57 (0.03)	211	0.64 (0.04)	67	0.7 (0.07)
Victim went	No	695	0.52 (0.02)	34	0.73 (0.11)	394	0.56 (0.03)	144	0.43 (0.05)	41	0.61 (0.09)
to hospital	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	110	0.74 (0.05)	37	0.64 (0.1)
Panel C. Socioeconomic status											
Gender	Female	351	0.53 (0.03)	12	0.74 (0.18)	196	0.58 (0.04)	86	0.63 (0.06)	21	0.77 (0.11)
	Male	344	0.5 (0.03)	22	0.71 (0.11)	198	0.55 (0.04)	168	0.51 (0.05)	57	0.55 (0.08)
Age	18-24	46	0.42 (0.09)	3	0.55 (0.44)	24	0.22 (0.11)	31	0.37 (0.09)	9	0.29 (0.18)
	25-34	137	0.45 (0.05)	4	0.76 (0.26)	75	0.65 (0.07)	57	0.45 (0.08)	13	0.35 (0.18)
	35-49	298	0.57 (0.03)	14	0.79 (0.13)	144	0.61 (0.05)	99	0.62 (0.06)	41	0.73 (0.09)
	50-64	139	0.51 (0.05)	8	0.62 (0.23)	85	0.51 (0.06)	57	0.69 (0.08)	12	0.78 (0.14)
	65+	75	0.57 (0.07)	5	1 (0)	66	0.6 (0.07)	10	0.8 (0.16)	2	0.76 (0.56)
Has partner	No	289	0.5 (0.04)	19	0.71 (0.15)	177	0.55 (0.04)	139	0.55 (0.05)	31	0.59 (0.12)
	Yes	446	0.52 (0.03)	16	0.77 (0.13)	249	0.62 (0.04)	146	0.57 (0.05)	55	0.6 (0.08)
Household income	Lower	456	0.52 (0.03)	24	0.85 (0.08)	265	0.57 (0.04)	180	0.58 (0.04)	59	0.66 (0.08)
	Middle to upper	261	0.49 (0.04)	11	0.58 (0.24)	146	0.61 (0.05)	95	0.56 (0.06)	21	0.48 (0.12)
Settlement type	City	506	0.51 (0.03)	27	0.88 (0.09)	286	0.56 (0.04)	194	0.51 (0.04)	60	0.57 (0.08)
	Small town or village	189	0.55 (0.04)	7	0.34 (0.27)	108	0.56 (0.05)	60	0.71 (0.07)	18	0.74 (0.13)
Higher education	No	260	0.51 (0.03)	17	0.84 (0.11)	167	0.51 (0.04)	126	0.56 (0.05)	36	0.63 (0.09)
	Yes	433	0.53 (0.03)	17	0.49 (0.21)	227	0.67 (0.03)	126	0.57 (0.05)	42	0.59 (0.09)
Employment	Non-employed or pensioner	190	0.56 (0.04)	12	0.94 (0.08)	130	0.54 (0.05)	65	0.71 (0.07)	14	0.7 (0.15)
	Employed or student	505	0.5 (0.03)	22	0.63 (0.15)	264	0.58 (0.04)	189	0.5 (0.04)	64	0.6 (0.08)
Panel D. Incident characteristics											
Damage: money, thnd rub.	0 to 1	46	0.21 (0.07)	1	1 (n/a)	40	0.41 (0.09)	176	0.49 (0.04)	7	0.45 (0.25)
	1 to 10	219	0.38 (0.04)	7	0.72 (0.27)	101	0.42 (0.06)	32	0.67 (0.11)	12	0.58 (0.18)
	10 to 50	196	0.51 (0.04)	3	0.36 (0.34)	132	0.55 (0.05)	18	0.69 (0.14)	30	0.71 (0.1)
	50+	234	0.71 (0.04)	23	0.77 (0.12)	121	0.74 (0.05)	28	0.79 (0.1)	29	0.62 (0.12)
Damage: physical	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	50	0.47 (0.08)	6	0.82 (0.24)
	Light	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	118	0.48 (0.06)	18	0.68 (0.14)
	Heavy	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	86	0.71 (0.06)	31	0.6 (0.11)
Damage: emotional	Light	129	0.33 (0.05)	4	0.75 (0.34)	75	0.47 (0.07)	56	0.37 (0.08)	4	0.75 (0.39)
	Medium	167	0.48 (0.05)	6	0.05 (0.17)	109	0.61 (0.06)	55	0.46 (0.08)	22	0.44 (0.12)
	Heavy	393	0.58 (0.03)	24	0.96 (0.05)	206	0.56 (0.04)	143	0.67 (0.05)	52	0.67 (0.08)
There was a witness	No	481	0.51 (0.03)	13	0.59 (0.18)	209	0.6 (0.04)	92	0.46 (0.07)	36	0.57 (0.1)
	Yes	214	0.54 (0.04)	21	0.84 (0.12)	185	0.52 (0.04)	162	0.62 (0.04)	42	0.66 (0.09)
Offender had a weapon	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	179	0.51 (0.05)	33	0.66 (0.1)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	75	0.68 (0.06)	22	0.64 (0.13)
Victim resisted	No/Doubt	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	71	0.7 (0.06)	23	0.76 (0.12)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	183	0.5 (0.05)	32	0.58 (0.11)
Victim-offender relationship	Stranger	413	0.54 (0.03)	21	0.68 (0.14)	56	0.5 (0.08)	175	0.47 (0.05)	54	0.55 (0.09)
	Acquaintance	14	0.68 (0.15)	7	0.92 (0.12)	12	0.64 (0.17)	28	0.6 (0.12)	7	0.51 (0.26)
	Coll. or neighbor	4	0.68 (0.31)	5	0.85 (0.19)	7	0.64 (0.21)	31	0.95 (0.05)	7	0.64 (0.24)
	Friend or rel.	2	1 (0)	2	1 (0)	3	0.51 (0.41)	29	0.56 (0.11)	1	1 (n/a)
	Sp. or partner	2	1 (0)	0	n/a	2	0 (0)	12	0.62 (0.16)	5	1 (0)
Panel E. Victim's attitude towards the police											
Has crime record	No	627	0.52 (0.02)	25	0.66 (0.13)	361	0.56 (0.03)	207	0.57 (0.04)	62	0.62 (0.08)
	Yes	67	0.49 (0.07)	9	0.96 (0.08)	32	0.56 (0.1)	46	0.53 (0.09)	16	0.62 (0.15)
Knows an officer	No	378	0.54 (0.03)	16	0.82 (0.11)	204	0.57 (0.04)	115	0.6 (0.05)	34	0.67 (0.1)
	Yes	313	0.5 (0.03)	18	0.67 (0.16)	190	0.55 (0.04)	138	0.53 (0.05)	43	0.57 (0.1)
Trusts the police	No	347	0.52 (0.03)	23	0.9 (0.07)	219	0.55 (0.04)	155	0.61 (0.05)	45	0.64 (0.09)
	Yes	348	0.52 (0.03)	11	0.54 (0.22)	175	0.58 (0.04)	99	0.49 (0.06)	33	0.6 (0.11)

Proportions of reported victimizations and standard errors were calculated using observations weights to correct for sample imbalances.